CHAPTER-I

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1.1 The Essence of Epistemology:

In this universe, each and every human being acts to fulfill their purpose (*svaprayojana*). Human beings perform their acts to satisfy some *prayojana* or end-in-view of their own. The cognition of conduciveness to that what is desired (*iṣṭasādhana jñāna*), is accepted as the cause of human inclination (*pravṛtti*). We have seen that various people perform differently for keeping a specific purpose or *prayojana* in mind. Nyāya, an *āstika* school of Indian Philosophy, has accepted *prayojana* (incentive) or end-in-view as one of the sixteen categories (*padārtha*-s) for this reason. The great sage Gautama says that *prayojana* (incentive) is to understand an object for the attainment or avoidance of which one adopts the means after ascertaining it to be desirable or avoidable.[1] *Prayojana* (incentive) is of two sorts viz. primary and secondary. A thing that is desired for his own sake is called the primary incentive. The attainment of pleasure and the cessation of suffering are such types of incentives. The secondary incentive is not desired for one's own sake; it is desired for the sake of others. One has to have the knowledge or cognition to meet his *prayojana* (incentive). So, right or valid knowledge or cognition is necessary to fulfill the goal, i.e., *prayojana* (incentive). All of the Indian philosophical schools also accept this view. This has been coined by Vātsyāyana, a commentator of *Nyāya-Sūtra*, at the very beginning of his commentary as it is impossible to know the object without the instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*). Again, the fruitful activity of discerning (*pravṛtti*) is possible due to the valid cognition of objects.[2] Now, the question arises that what is right or valid knowledge or cognition, and how can we apply this to achieve our *prayojana* (incentive).

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[1] "*yamarthamadhikṛtya pravarttate tat prayojanam*". *Nyāya-Sūtra*: 1-1-24.

[2] "*pramāṇato'rtha-pratipattau / pravṛttisāmarthyādarthavat pramāṇaṁ*." *Nyāya-Sūtra-Bhāṣya*: Introductory *Bhāṣya*.

1.2 The Etymological Meaning of *Pramā*:

Valid knowledge or cognition, in Sanskrit, is called '*pramā*'. It has a special etymological meaning. Though all of the Indian philosophers do not agree on the nature of *pramā*. The word '*pramā*' derives from the suffix '*pra*' and the root '*mā*'. The word '*pra*' means excellent (*prakṛṣṭa*) and '*mā*' means knowledge or cognition (*jñāna*). So, the etymological meaning of *pramā* is 'knowledge or cognition par excellence'. The Sanskrit word '*jñāna*' is also sometimes translated as knowledge or cognition. However, the word '*jñāna*' in Indian philosophy includes doubt, error, illusion, as well as cognition or knowledge. So, the Sanskrit word '*jñāna*' stands for *pramā* as well as *apramā*. The word '*pramā*' means valid knowledge or cognition, and '*apramā*' means invalid knowledge or cognition.

1.3 *Pramā* and Knowledge:

Western philosophers use knowledge to refer to the true one. So, how can we distinguish true knowledge from false one? J. N. Mohanty and B.K. Motilal has taken for granted '*pramā*' as knowledge. They say, "In fact, we might take some comfort here, for the intuitive concept of 'knowledge' by and large coincides with the intuitive sense of *pramā* in Sanskrit despite some minor discrepancies"[3]. However, Karl H. Potter does not translate '*pramā*' into knowledge, as knowledge is generally defined as the justified true belief in Western philosophy – "What this paper is arguing is that Indian Philosophy, not being wedded to a non-cognitivist approach, things it can talk of knowledge (or rather, of *pramā*), but in a sense of 'knowledge' different from current notions predicated on non-cognitivism"[4]. However, in Indian philosophy, we do not find any similar word of belief. They say that *pramā* is not justified true belief. Here, *pramā* accepts as a tool for fulfilling human desire (*saphalapravṛttijanakatva*).

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[3] Krishna, Daya. and Sharma, K.L. (Ed.), '*Knowledge, Truth and Pramātva*' by J.N.Mohanty and B.K. Motilal, In *The Philosophy of J. N. Mohanty*, ICPR Series in Contemporary Indian Philosophy, New Delhi, 1991, p. 17.

[4] Ibid. '*Does Indian Epistemology Concern Justified True Belief*?' p. 140.

Nevertheless, in Western philosophy, knowledge is only for the sake of knowledge. Proyash Sarkar, Jadavpur University, has mentioned this truth rightly, followed by Pt. Visvabandhu Bhattacharyya[5] as "Gettier-type problems do not arise with regard to Nyāya epistemology. He sticks to the Nyāya definition of *pramā* as a piece of true non-dubious (non-mnemic) cognition and feels no need for introducing in the definition any other concept, like that of justification."[6] In Indian philosophy, *pramā* is not merely true awareness; it is, instead, a true non-dubious awareness.

In this context, we think that *pramā* cannot be translated as knowledge. Because the philosophy of each country has a uniqueness due to its own tradition. Indian philosophy also has its own uniqueness. Every culture has a form of life. According to Wittgenstein, "So speaking a language – i.e. a speaking and understanding it – is engaging in certain modes of behavior that exhibit a variety of abilities of skills. It is to engage in what Wittgenstein calls 'form of life'"[7]. The form of life can be accomplished through culture and tradition. The whole of the Indian philosophy, except the Cārvāka school, accepts liberation (*mokṣa*) as an ultimate goal of life. So, in Indian culture, liberation (*mokṣa*) is accepted as a form of life in the ultimate sense. In this research project, we have used the term 'cognition' to denote the word '*jñāna*' to avoid such a type of vagueness. That is why *pramā* and *apramā* are translated into English as valid cognition and invalid cognition respectively for our functional purpose.

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[5] Bhattacharyya, Pt. Visvabandhu. '*Valid Cognition (Pramā) and the Truth (Satyatā) of Its Object*', In *Concept of Knowledge: East and West*, The Ramkrishna Mission Institute of Culture, Calcutta, 2000.

[6] Sarkar, Proyash. '*Placing Nyāya Epistemology Properly in the Western Tradition*', In *Foundations of Logic and Language: Some Philosophical Issues in Indian Logic*, Srilekha Datta and Amita Chatterjee (Ed.), Jadavpur Studies in Philosophy Third Series, Jadavpur University, Kolkatta, 2003, p. 160.

[7] Pitcher, George. *The Philosophy of Wittgenstein*, Prentice Hall of India, New Delhi, 1985, p. 237.

The concept of cognition (*jñāna*) in Indian philosophy is used in a broader sense than the Western concept of knowledge (justified true belief). The word '*jñāna*', '*buddhi*', and '*upalabddhi*' are accepted as synonymous in Nyāya philosophy.[8] Annaṁbhaṭṭa, one of the *Navya* Naiyāyika, says in the definition of *jñāna*, '*buddhi*' and '*jñāna*' are synonymous terms, which is one of the qualities of our soul and is the ground of all uses[9]. In this definition of *jñāna*, the term '*guṇa*' (quality) is included for removing the fallacy of over-coverage (*ativyāpti-doṣa*) in space (*deśa*), time (*kāla*), etc., which are not *guṇa padārtha*-s. The term '*sarva vyavahāra*' (all uses) is used in the definition for removing the fallacy of over-coverage (*ativyāpti-doṣa*) in pleasure (*sukha*), pain (*duḥkha*), etc., which are not the causes of all uses. Also, the term '*hetu*' is included in this definition to denote the *jñāna* as an uncommon cause (*asādhāraṇa kāraṇa*) of all our behavior.

According to the definition of *jñāna*, it is essential to note that controversy is seen among scholars about the exact meaning of the term 'all uses'. Some scholars view that by 'all uses' Annaṁbhaṭṭa intense to mean all types of activities, either verbal or non-verbal. But some of the scholars, on the other, opine that by the term 'all uses' he intends to mean only the linguistic activities. So, this definition of *jñāna* becomes the subject of the fallacy of under coverage (*avyāpti*) since this definition does not apply to indeterminate cognition (*nirvikalpaka jñāna*). Because we come across such types of cognition that are not expressed by a word, like the cognition of children, dumb men, etc. To avoid such type of fallacy, Annaṁbhaṭṭa again says that '*sarva vyavahāra hetuḥ*' is not the defining characteristic of *jñāna*; instead, cagnitionhood (*jñānatva-jāti*) is the defining characteristic (*lakṣaṇa*) of cognition (*jñāna*). So, cognition is not possible if it is not associated with cognitionhood. The essence of cognitionhood is cognized by subsequent cognition.[10] The cognition (*jñāna*) is also of two sorts viz. remembrance (*smṛti*) and presentative (*anubhava*).

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[8] "*buddhirupalabdhirjñānamityanarthāntaram*". *Nyāya-Sūtra*: 1-1-15.

[9] "*sarva vyavahārahetuḥ guṇaḥ buddhi jñānam*". *Tarkasaṁgraha*: 34.

[10] "*jānāmi iti anuvyavasāyagamyajñānatvaṁ*". *Tarkasaṁgraha-Dīpikā*: 34.

Remembrance is that cognition, which is produced only from the mental impression.[11] The presentative cognition is different from remembrance (*tadbhinnaṁ jñānam*)[12]. Again, this presentative cognition (*anubhava*) is of two sorts viz. *yathārtha anubhava* or *pramā* (valid presentative cognition) and *ayathārtha anubhava* or *apramā* (invalid presentative cognition).

It is already mentioned that there is a controversy among the philosophers regarding the synonymy of the Western concept of knowledge and the Indian concept of *pramā*. In Western philosophy, knowledge is described as justified true belief. Sometimes, some philosophers use *pramā* as a justified true belief. Sutapa Saha, a scholar of Jadavpur University, compares '*yathārtha*' with 'true' and '*anubhava*' with 'justified belief'. So, according to her, *pramā* may be interpreted as synonymous with knowledge.[13] However, we may say that there is a certain difference between *pramā* and justified true belief.

In Western philosophy, we have found that there are mainly two sorts of views regarding the definition of knowledge. The traditional philosophers generally define knowledge as such type of belief, which is true as well as justified. However, there are some other philosophers like Cookwillson, and Prichard, who believes that knowledge cannot be defined through belief because one is different from another in nature. Prichard defines knowledge as true. However, truth and falsity are proclaimed to belief only. When knowledge is necessarily true, its propositions are a-priori, and belief is only contingently true or false, its propositions are a-posteriori. Hence, there

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[11] "*saṁskāramātrajanyam jñānam smṛtiḥ*". *Tarkasaṁgraha*: 35.

[12] "*tadbhinnaṁ jñānam anubhavaḥ*". *Tarkasaṁgraha*: 36.

[13] "In this connection we would like to refer to the definition of *pramā* as *yathārthaṁbhāva*. If we treat knowledge as justified true belief and if *pramā* is to be understood as a parallel here of knowledge, then *yathārthānubhava* must correspond to JTB."

- Saha, Sutapa. *Evidence and Truth: Responses to the gather problem*, Jadavpur Studies in Philosophy, Second series, Allied Publishers Ltd. in Collaboration with Jadavpur University, Calcutta, 1994.

is a specific difference between knowledge and belief. That is why knowledge cannot be defined in terms of belief.

Now let us discuss whether *pramā* and knowledge which is defined as justified true belief by some philosophers are one and the same. In Indian philosophy, we have not found any concept of belief like the Western philosophy. Though, J.N. Mohanty expresses that there is some sort of concept of belief in Indian philosophy[14]. He has shown *pramā* as a non-dubious cognition (*niścaya jñāna*). A non-dubious cognition (*niścaya jñāna*) is also either valid cognition (*pramā*) or invalid cognition (*apramā*), just as a belief may be true or false. Finally, Mohanty gives her decision that the Indian concepts of *niścaya jñāna* and Western concepts of belief are synonymous. However, our observation is not for Mohanty's position.

The meaning of the Sanskrit word '*niścaya*' is 'being confident of'. Truth and falsity are not the single essential features of belief or *niścaya jñāna*. Because they are not like the two sides of the same coin. Say, for example, blue and orange colors may be indicated to the cloth as well as flowers. However, we cannot say that cloth and flowers are identical.

Moreover, what we have already mentioned is that some Western thinkers have not defined knowledge in terms of belief. They say that truth and falsity are not associated with knowledge as knowledge itself is true. 'Being confident of' is a necessary condition of knowledge. But, 'belief' is not a necessary condition of knowledge as it is stated by Coochwillson, Prichard, etc. So, 'being confident of'

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[14] "I do not know of any Sanskrit synonym for belief. But *pramā* is a *niścayajñāna*, a non-dubious cognition. A *niścayajñāna* may be either *pramā* or *a-pramā*, just as a belief may be true or false. But belief is belief in a proposition, whereas a *niścayajñāna*, is *savikalpaka*, i.e., conceptual, has a propositional structure, though its object is not a proposition. We know, however, that a theory of belief is possible, in which belief that P is one unanalyzed structure. If all this is true, there is some sense in saying that *niścayajñāna* and 'belief' mean just about the same."

- Krishna, Daya. and Sharma, K.L. (Ed.), '*Pramā, Justified True Belief Theory and the Gettier-Type Cases*' by J. N. Mohanty, In *The Philosophy of J. N. Mohanty*, ICPR Series in Contemporary Indian Philosophy, New Delhi, 1991, pp. 216-217.

(*niścaya jñāna*) should not be translated as 'belief' since they are not synonymous. Henceforth, there is no room for belief in Indian epistemology (*pramāṇa-śāstra*).

Modern Western philosophers like Chisholm, and Keith Lehrer, think that the concept of belief does not apply to the definition of knowledge. They introduce the concept of 'acceptance' instead of belief in the definition of knowledge. Belief is associated with quality, such as emotions, and desire. However, knowledge should be free from such types of emotions and desires. Because if knowledge is associated with those qualities like emotions, desires, etc., then it should be defeated of one-eyedness. Ayer also uses 'being sure' instead of belief in the field of knowledge. So, the concept of belief is also neglected by some Western philosophers.

We come across another observation regarding knowledge and *pramā* in Western philosophy. In the case of knowledge claims, the question of justification arises. In Indian philosophy, we also use the term '*pramāṇa*' to justify the *pramā* (valid cognition). Here, we use the term '*pramāṇa*' instead of justification. However, in Indian philosophy, the term '*pramāṇa*' is used in a very technical sense. Here, *pramāṇa* does not mean evidence; instead, it is an instrument of valid cognition. *Pramāṇa* is the standard to justify the *pramā*.

In Western philosophy, the concept of justification is used in two senses viz. in the strong sense and the weak sense. Justification with the strong sense means 'truth-ensuring', and the weak sense means 'truth-conducive'. These two sorts of justification are implied that Western philosophy is not always truth-hitting as they can be both strong and weak sense. However, for the Indian, Anup Barman, a scholar of Indian philosophy, says, "The Indian concept of instrumental condition (*pramāṇa*), on the other hand, is always **truth hitting**. No such concepts of instrumental condition (*pramāṇa*) guided by reason are found in Indian tradition. There is no distinction of instrumental condition (*pramāṇa*) in the strong sense, i.e., guided by reason and instrumental condition in the weak sense, i.e., guided by the senses. Pure mathematics and empirical sciences, in Indian tradition, have the same logical status. Even the concept of Universal (*jāti*), in Nyāya, is cognized through perception,

though through supernatural perception (*alaukika pratyakṣa*)".[15] Therefore, Indian philosophy is always truth-hitting. From the discussion, as mentioned earlier, we may conclude that *pramā* cannot be treated as synonymous with knowledge. Consequently, we have used the term **'cognition'** instead of knowledge in this thesis.

1.4 *Pramā and Pramāṇa*:

The very title of the thesis demands that we should discuss at least in brief what is meant by *pramā* and *pramāṇa.* Therefore, an attempt has been made in this section to deal with the concept of *pramā* and *pramāṇa*. Indian philosophers have discussed the nature of *pramā* or valid cognition in different ways according to their metaphysical status. The way one gets the valid cognition of an object is determined by certain *pramāṇa*. Hence, the number of *pramāṇa*-s differs from school to school in Indian philosophy. However, this chapter would restrict some of the debates between Nyāya, Buddhist, Mīmāṁsā (Prābhākara and Bhāṭṭa), Advaita Vedānta, and Sāṁkhya schools.

There are different branches of Indian Philosophy, such as Epistemology, Metaphysics, Logic, and Ethics. Epistemology deals with different issues related to cognition. Among them, the concepts of *pramā*, *pramāṇa*, *prameya,* and *pramiti* are fundamental and these concepts are also interdependent on each other. All of these four are *pramāṇa*-center.[16] The instrument of cognition or the instrumental cause (*karaṇa*) of valid cognition (*pramā*) is called *pramāṇa*. A person who attains

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[15] Barman, Anup. *The Nyāya Concept of Pramā: A Critical Study*, Ph.D. Thesis, The University of North Bengal, 2001, pp. 33-34.
Weblink: http://hdl.handle.net/10603/137456 Accessed on 09-01-2017 at 09:30 p.m.

[16] "*arthavati ca pramāṇe pramātā-prameyaṁ-pramitirityarthabanti bhavanti. Kasmāt? Anyatamāpāye'rthasyānupapatteḥ. Tatra yasyepsājihāsāprayuktasya pravṛttiḥ sa pramātā. Sa yenārthaṁ pramiṇoti, tatpramāṇaṁ. yo'rthaḥ pramīyate, tat prameyam. Yadarthavijñānaṁ, sā pramitiḥ. Catasṛṣvevambidhāsu tattvaṁ parisamāpatye*".

- Tarkavāgīśa, Phaṇībhūṣaṇ. (Ed.), *Nyāyadarśana*, Vol. 1, WBSBB, Kolkata, 2011, pp. 11-12.

cognition is called cognizer (*pramiti* or *pramātā*). Most of the philosophers are of the opinion that cognition must have an object. This object of valid cognition is called *prameya*.

Let us discuss what do we mean by *pramāṇa* and *prameya*. In this regard, Nārāyaṇa Bhaṭṭa, a *Bhāṭṭa Mīmāṁsaka*, writes, "*mānameyavibhāgena vastūnāṁ dvibidhā sthitiḥ*".[17] Accordingly, the existence of all things in this organism is divided into two-fold viz. instrument of cognition (*pramāṇa*) and objects of cognition (*prameya*). Over and above these two, there is nothing. The concept of *pramā* and *prameya* are intimately connected. No cognition can be attained without the instrumental cause (*pramāṇa*) that is why *pramāṇa* plays a vital role in the field of epistemology. The knower of cognition is called *pramiti*.

We all are well aware of the fact that all schools of Indian philosophy (except the *Cārvāka*) advocate that there are four goals or *puruṣārtha*-s[18] to attain in our life, among them liberation or *mokṣa* is the highest goal (*sumum bonum*). This highest goal can be attained through the cognition of the self (*ātma jñāna*). Therefore, the self is one of the objects of valid cognition (*prameya*). Though some of the schools have given a list of *prameya*, all are of the opinion that the self is the essential object of cognition (*prameya*) among them. Keeping this in view, the philosophers have given their attention to dealing with the concept of *pramāṇa*. According to the Nyāya school, the instrumental cause (*karaṇa*) of valid cognition (*pramā*) is called *pramāṇa*.[19] This view has been supported by most of all the schools of Indian philosophy except Buddha, Vaiśeṣika, and Prābhākar Mīmāṁsā.

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[17] Bhaṭṭa, Nārāyaṇa. *Mānameyodaya*, Sridinanath Tripathi Nabatirtha (Ed.), Vol II, Sanskrit College, Kolkata, 1989, p. 1.

[18] *dharma*, *artha*, *kāma* and *mokṣa*.

[19] *"pramākaraṇaṁ pramāṇaṁ".*

1.5 Nature of *Karaṇa*:

Now a question may arise: what is *karaṇa* (instrumental cause)? Though the Nyāya, Mīmāṁsā, Sāṁkhya, and Vedānta schools have different views on the nature of valid cognition, they have the same view regarding the nature of the means of cognition (*pramāṇa*), i.e., "*pramākaraṇamevātra pramāṇaṁ tarkapakṣavat.*"[20]. This definition shows that the notion of *pramāṇa* is similar to the Naiyāyikas and the Bhāṭṭas. However, controversy arises among the philosophers regarding the definition of valid cognition (*pramā*). It is worthy to note that Kumārila Bhaṭṭa does not discuss *karaṇa* in his *Ślokavārttika*. Let us discuss the concept of *karaṇa* (instrumental cause), according to the Naiyāyikas.

Before dealing with *karaṇa*, it is pertinent to explain the notion of *kāraṇa* in brief because the notion of *karaṇa* is necessarily related to the notion of *kāraṇa*. According to Annaṁbhṭṭa, *kāraṇa* is something that exists uniformly (*niyata*) before the effect (*kārya-pūrva-vṛtti*).[21] There are three sorts of *kāraṇa* viz. *samavāyī-kāraṇa, a-samavāyi-kāraṇa* and *nimitta-kāraṇa*. Again, the *nimitta-kāraṇa* is of two types viz. *sādhāraṇa kāraṇa* and *a-sādhāraṇa kāraṇa*. Here, *sādhāraṇa kāraṇa* means the conditions which are necessary for the production of any effect. There are eight types of *sādhāraṇa kāraṇa* viz. God (*īśvara*), cognition of God (*īśvarer jñāna*), will of God (*īśrer īcchā*), the endeavor of God (*īśvarer prajatna*), space (*deśa*), time (*kāla*), unseen power (*adṛṣṭa*), and prior absence (*prāgabhāva*). *A-sādhāraṇa kāraṇa* is an uncommon condition that is only necessary for the origination of a particular effect. For example, sense-object-contact (*indriyārthasannikarṣa*) is the uncommon causal condition of perception (*pratyakṣa*). So, the uncommon causal conditions (*a-sādhāraṇa kāraṇa*) are necessary for the origination of a particular type of effect and no other types of effect.

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[20] *Mānameyodaya*: 3, p. 2.

[21] "*kāryaniyatapūrvavṛtti kārṇaṁ*", *Tarkasaṁgraha*: 41.

In the Nyāya school, we come across three types of discussion regarding the definition of *karaṇa*, one is given by *Prācīna* Nyāya, the second one is given by *Navya* Nyāya, and the third one is rendered by Jayanta Bhaṭṭa.

All Naiyāyikas agree on the concept of the *karaṇa*, i.e., uncommon causal condition[22], but they differ on the definition and nature of the uncommon causal condition. *Prāchīna* Naiyāyikas say that the cause which is not separate from the result is called *karaṇa*[23]. It can be explained with the help of perception. Perception is possible only when our sense-organ comes in contact with the object. Here, the sense-object contact (*indriyārtha sannikarṣa*) is the condition that proceeds perception. The sense-object-contact (*indriyārtha sannikarṣa*) is the uncommon causal condition, i.e., *karaṇa*. Likewise, confirmatory cognition (*parāmarśa*), cognition of significance (*tātparya jñāna*), and cognition of similarity (*sādṛśya jñāna*) are the uncommon causal condition of inference (*anumiti*), verbal testimony (*śābdabodha*) and comparison (*upamiti*) respectively. Thus, *Prāchīna* Naiyāyikas are of the opinion that the instrument of valid cognition, i.e., *karaṇa* should be an uncommon causal condition (*asamavāyī kāraṇa*).

Navya Naiyāyikas hold that the uncommon causal condition which is produced by an intermediate cause (*vyāpāra*) is called *karaṇa*.[24] Here, intermediate cause (*vyāpāra*) is used as a terminal condition (*carama-kāraṇa*). An intermediatory cause (*vyāpāra*) is one that is produced by something that becomes the producer of that entity produced by the earlier one.[25] This has been explained with the help of an effect, i.e., 'cutting off a piece of wood'. Cutting off a piece of wood is possible through the contact of some sharp instrument with the wood. Here, the terminal condition (*carama-kāraṇa*) is the contact between a sharp instrument and wood. It is

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[22] "*asādhāraṇam kāraṇam karaṇam*". *Tarkasaṁgraha*: 40.

[23] "*falājoga-vyavacchinnaṁ kāraṇam karaṇamityuddyotakarādimate tu parāmarśa eva karaṇamiti dheyam*". *Dīpikāprakāśa, Nilkantha-Tīkā.*

[24] "*vyāparvat asādhāraṇaṁ kāraṇaṁ karaṇam*". *Tarkasaṁgraha*, p. 291.

[25] "*tajjanyate sati tajjanya-janakatvaṁ vyāpāratvaṁ*". Ibid., p. 291.

essential to point out that Annaṁbhaṭṭa, a *Navya* Naiyāyika, takes this definition of the uncommon causal condition in the case of inference (*pratyakṣa*), comparison (*upamiti*), and verbal cognition (*sābdabodha*). However, in the case of inference (*anumiti*), he takes that condition that appears last on the scene, i.e., confirmatory cognition (*parāmarśa*) following the *Prāchīna* Naiyāyikas. An intermediate cause (*vyāpāra*) is always either a quality (*guṇa*) or an action (*karma*), but never a substance (*dravya*).

On the other hand, Jayanta Bhaṭṭa defines uncommon causal condition (*karaṇa*) as the *causa-sui* of an act (s*ādhakatama*). He has taken this concept from the famous grammarian Pāṇini. Pāṇini defines an uncommon causal condition (*karaṇa*) as '*sādhakatama*'.[26] The term '*sādhakatama*' is derived from the root '*sādhaka*' which means the instrument and the nominal suffix '*tamap*' indicates a sense of comparison, which is excellent. According to Jayanta Bhaṭṭa, the excellence of a condition persists neither in an inherent condition (*samavāyī kāraṇa*) nor a non-inherent condition (*asamavāyī kāraṇa*). However, it persists in the conglomemoration of conditions (*kāraṇa-sāmagrī*).

The concept 'comparison' denotes to others with which it is compared. There must be other conditions of an act, among which the most efficacious one is called '*sādhaka-tama*'. Here, collocation (*sāmagrī*) is called *pramāṇa*. However, the collocation is the totality of some entity. Now a question may arise: how the most efficacy can discern from the collocation when there is no other entity outside the collocation?

Similarly, if all conditions followed by collocation aimed at the instrument of valid cognition of an object, then how would it have a place of comparison? One may also argue that if an object is indeed known, it will also follow one of the conditions of such cognition. Therefore, everything gets merged with the collocation, and it loses its uniqueness. Hence, the object of cognition itself presents as one of the members of the collocation and will become apparent about the instrument of its process of knowing.

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[26] "*sādhakatamaṁ karaṇam*". *Pāṇini-Sūtra*: 1-4-42.

In consequence, "all acts of true knowledge become objectless from the standpoint since the object of knowledge is included in the collocation like the sense-organ, viz., eyes, etc. Who will be the subject of an act of knowledge?"[27] The subject who knows an object with the help of an instrument by the structure of collocation is one of the existing conditions of an act of cognition. Thus, the subject itself is submerged as a condition. Therefore, the subject fades away from being a subject, and it becomes an instrument.

However, if this kind of illogical conclusion is drawn over and is being accepted by the contender, then the central position of Nyāya epistemology will fall into danger (maybe exposed). We know that Nyāya epistemology represents an image of pragmatism. To maintain such a model, in the Nyāya school a separate and unique position is given to the subject of true cognition, the object itself, the instrument of its, and the act itself. It is indispensable to know and maintain this distinctive position of each and every unit of cognition mentioned. Indeed, many thinkers do not agree to approve the above mention hypothesis since it is found that it has an indication of collocation as being used in the form of instrumental cause. It is worthy to note that when we perceive an object, we recognize the object, not as the colloction of all conditions. It is something other than the collocation. Therefore, no collocation of all states of conditions is an instrument. Hence, it is clear that the collocation of conditions is not *pramāṇa*.

To refute the above objection, Jayanta Bhaṭṭa says that instrumental cause (*karaṇa*) is not used to refer to a collocation of conditions (*sāmagrī*). Instead, he suggests that an instrumental case ending (*tṛtīyā vibhakti*) is put upon to an individual condition only when a separated condition gets united for the output of an effect. Hence, Jayanta Bhaṭṭa holds that collocation of conditions is only a pre-condition for the role of the instrumental case or third case-ending (*tṛtīyā vibhakti*).

Another objection against the above view is that, if the collocation of both the conscious and unconscious conditions is granted as an instrument in the sense of

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[27] Bhattacharyya. Janaki Vallabha (Tr. & El.), *Jayanta Bhaṭṭa's Nyāya-Mañjarī: The Compendium of Indian Speculative Logic*, Vol-I, Motilal Banarshidass, Delhi, Reprint 2017, p. 23.

being most effective for producing an effect (*sādhakatama*), then the subject and object of cognition are also included in that collocation (*sāmagrī*). This can be explained by citing an example: In the darkness, a flash of lightning is the cause of illuminating a woman. However, had there been no woman, she would not have been seen. Similarly, had the flash of lighting not been produced, then also the woman would not have been seen. So, the question arises: What is the instrumental cause for seeing the woman? The thing which is necessary for the production of the effect is called excellence (*atiśaya*). Here, the collocation of the presence of the woman and the perceiver are also taken together. So, if we accept that conglomemoration of conditions (*kāraṇa-sāmagrī*) is excellence (*atiśaya*) for an instrument, there is no question about the selection of the instrument. In that situation, Nyāya epistemology will lose its epistemic status. Jayanta Bhaṭṭa is not aware of it when he defines instrumentality (*sādhakatama*) as the collocation of both conscious and unconscious conditions other than the subject and object, which is free from doubt and error.[28]

Here, Anup Barman observes Jayanta's theory of the instrumental condition (*pramāṇa*) which is very worthy to note. He says,

(a) "Instrumental condition in general means an unconscious condition, even if it be conscious to some cases, it acts just as an unconscious condition, because an instrument by itself has no active role for the origination of an effect. But, Jayanta's concept of instrument of valid cognition is not solely unconscious. Because by instrument of cognition (*pramāṇa*) Jayanta means the collocation of condition taking both the conscious and unconscious conditions.

(b) The general concept of instrument is that it is an uncommon condition (*asādhāraṇa kāraṇa*) and refers to an isolated condition. But Jayanta's concept of instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*) is most effective condition for the origination of an effect (*sādhakatama*), besides this concept does not contradict with the stipulation of the Grammarians. The Grammarians suggest that the third case-ending is always used to an isolated condition. Jayanta has

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[28] "*tasmāt kartṛkarmavilakṣanā saṁśayaviparyayarahitārthāvodhavidhāyinī vodhāvodhasvabhāva sāmagrī pramāṇamiti yuktam*". *Nyāya-Mañjarī* – 34.

not opposed to this stipulation. He only suggests that the collocation makes the ground for such usages.

(c) Through all conditions, in collocation, get together and acquires the property of most excellence (*atiśaya*) than the individual isolated condition, yet the isolated condition are not modified. Hence, each and every isolated condition is capable of retaining its own uniqueness (*viśeṣatva*).

(d) The isolated individual member has only its own uniqueness (*viśeṣatva*), but these isolated conditions never acquire the property of excellence (*atiśaya*). It is the collocation which acquires the property of excellence (*atiśayatva*)."[29]

Now a question arises: if the subject and the object are taken out from the collocation of condition (*kāraṇa-sāmagrī*), then how the nature of both conscious and unconscious in the concept of an instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*) is possible? Because, Jayanta Bhaṭṭa, following Nyāya epistemology, accepts four components of cognition viz. the instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*), the object of valid cognition (*prameya*), the subject of cognition (*pramiti*), and the knower (*pramātā*). All of these are *pramāṇa*-centric[30]. It is important to point out that nobody applies the subject or the object as an instrument of valid cognition. Instead, they apply 'eyes', 'an inner organ', 'a lamp', 'a word', and 'a mark' as the instrumental cause of valid cognition. They sharply distinguish between subject and object, from an instrumental cause.

From the discussion, as mentioned earlier, we may say that Jayanta Bhaṭṭa accepts the collocation of condition (*kāraṇa-sāmagrī*) as an instrument of valid cognition (*karaṇa*). In contrast, he advocates 'eyes', 'an inner organ', 'a lamp', 'a word', and 'a mark' as the intermediate cause (*vyāpāra*) accordingly to particular effect. The collocation of condition (*kāraṇa-sāmagrī*) is the background of effect, and according to the background which one is the intermediate cause is called *vyāpāra* of

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[29] Barman, Anup. *The Nyāya Concept of Pramā: A Critical Study*, Ph. D. Thesis, The University of North Bengal, 2001, pp. 43-44.

[30] "*arthavati ca pramāṇe pramātāprameyam pramitirityarthavanti bhavanti*". *Nyāya-Sūtra-Bhāṣya*: 1-1-1.

that effect. So, the definition of the instrument of valid cognition (*karaṇa*)[31] of Jayanta Bhaṭṭa is nothing new; actually, the definition supports the *Navya* Nyāya's definition of the instrument of valid cognition (*karaṇa*), i.e., "*vyāparvat asādhāraṇaṁ kāraṇaṁ karaṇam*". Finally, in Nyāya epistemology, there are two definitions of *karaṇa* viz. *Prācīna* Nyāya and *Navya* Nyāya.

1.6 Number of *Pramāṇa*-s:

Now, let us deal with the different views on the number of instruments of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*). Different schools of Indian philosophy do not go hand in hand in maintaining the number of *pramāṇa*-s because of their metaphysical standpoint. A chart has been given below, which represents the view of the different schools regarding the number of *pramāṇa*-s.

1. Cārvāka → *pratyakṣa*.

2. Buddha & Vaiśeṣika → *pratyakṣa,* and *anumāna*.

3. Jaina, Sāṁkhya & Yoga → *pratyakṣa*, *anumāna,* and *śabda*.

4. Nyāya → *pratyakṣa*, *anumāna*, *upamāna,* and *śabda*.

5. Prābhākara Mīmāṁsā → *pratyakṣa*, *anumāna*, *upamāna*, *śabda,* and *arthāpatti*.

6. Bhāṭṭa Mīmāṁsā & Advaita Vedānta → *pratyakṣa*, *anumāna*, *upamāna*, *śabda, arthāpatti*, and *anupalabdhi*.

1.7 Nature of *Pramā*:

Though philosophers differ one from another regarding the definition of *pramā* or valid cognition, but all of them agree about the importance of it. Regarding this view, it is essential to note what is said by Dharmakīrti in the very first verse

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[31] "*sādhakatamaṁ karaṇam*". *Pāṇini-Sūtra*: 1-4-42.

(*śloka*) of his famous book *Nyāyabindu*. Here he says, "*samyag-jñāna-pūrvikā sarva-puruṣārtha siddhir-iti tat vyutpādyate.*"[32] It implies that valid cognition or *pramā* plays a pivotal role in achieving our goal of any type. The same truth has been reflected in the very first verse of *Nyāya-Sūtra* which runs as, "*pramāṇa-prameya-saṁśaya-prayojana-dṛṣtānta-siddhāntāvayava-tarka-nirṇaya-vāda-jalpa-vitaṇdā-hetvāvāscchal-jāti-nigrahasthānānāṁ tattvajñānānniḥśreyasādhigamaḥ.*"[33] Thus it is seen that Gautama also clearly points out the importance of valid cognition or *pramā*. According to Nyāya, *niḥśreyasa* or *apavarga*, the highest goal of our life, can be attained only through the proper cognition of the sixteen categories (*padārtha*). If we look into Sāṁkhya and Yoga philosophy, then again, we can see that according to them, our ultimate goal can be achieved through '*vivekajñāna*'[34], i.e., the cognition of the distinction between *puruṣa* and *prakṛti*. According to Rāmānuja and Śaṁkara, liberation can be attained through the cognition of *Brahman*. Naturally, the question comes regarding the meaning of cognition (*jñāna*) or valid cognition, which is technically called by Indian philosophers *pramā*.

1.7.1 The Nyāya Concept of *Pramā*:

The Nyāya concept of *pramāṇa* has already been discussed earlier. Now let us deal with, in this section, the definition of *pramā* (valid cognition) after the Nyāya. According to Nyāya, valid presentative cognition is a definite or certain (*asandigdha*), unerring (*yathārtha*) cognition, and it consists of knowing the object as it is.[35] More clearly, to say, a valid cognition is one which has for its predicate a character that is possessed by the subject. However, cognition is invalid if it is otherwise. That is to say, a cognition is invalid, which has, for its predicate, a character that is not

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[32] *Nyāyabindu*: 1.

[33] *Nyāya-Sūtra*: 1-1-1.

[34] "*arthavaśāt*". *Sāṁkhya-Kārikā*: 65.

[35] "*tadvati tatprakāraka'nubhava yathārthaḥ.*" *Tarkasaṁgraha*: 37.

possessed by the subject (of the cognition).[36] Thus, '*pramā*' means *yathārthānubhava*, i.e., not in the sense of similarity or resemblance, but in the sense of definite and assured cognition of an object which is true presentational in character.[37] Now, we may explain this with the help of an example. 'I know a piece of silver as silverness'[38] – this cognition has three qualifiers like 'this', 'silver', and 'silverness'. In this case, the object of cognition is inaccurate without any aberration and, therefore, is valid. Here the cognition is one which has silverness as its qualifier, and the 'this' (a real silver) possesses silverness. Hence, the cognition possesses the property of '*rajatatvavati rajatatvaprakārakatva,*' which is the same as 'this is silver'. On the other hand, when we perceive 'a piece of shell as silver'[39], then the cognition is invalid. In this case, the 'silverness' which functions as a qualifier, does not belong to the qualificandum 'this'. So, this is not *rajatavat*, and this object of cognition is not *tadvatitatprakāraka*.

1.7.2 The Bhāṭṭa Mīmāṁsā Concept of *Pramā*:

We do not find any discussion on *pramā* in *Jaimini-Sūtra*. Later on, Prabhākara Miśra and Kumārila Bhaṭṭa, followers of Jaimini, are seen to give their attention to dealing with the concept of *pramā*. It is well-known to us that the Mīmāṁsā school has been distinguished into two sections, one is known as the Bhāṭṭa school, and another is known as the Prābhākara school. Both of these schools of Mīmāṁsā philosophy treat *pramā* in different ways. To define *pramā,* the Bhāṭṭa school says, "*pramā cājñātatattvārthajñānamevātra bhidyate*".[40] Two characteristics

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[36] "*tadbhāvavati tatprakārakaścāyathārthaḥ*." *Tarkasaṁgraha*: 38.

[37] Bhattacharyya, Pandit. Biswa. Bandhu. *Pramā-Lakṣaṇa*, Research Bulletin of Philosophy, Jadavpur University, Calcutta, Vol. I, No. I, 1984, p. 99.

[38] "*rajate idaṁ rajatam iti jñānaṁ*." *Tarkasaṁgraha*: 37.

[39] "*śuktau idaṁ rajatam iti jñānaṁ*." *Tarkasaṁgraha*: 38.

[40] *Mānameyodaya*: 3, p. 2.

qualify this definition. First, *pramā* must be a cognition of an object which was not known previously (*ajñāta*).[41] Secondly, it is the cognition of a thing as it is (*tattva*). The word '*ajñāta*' makes the definition free from the fallacy of over-coverage (*ativyāpti-doṣa*) by excluding *smṛti*, restatement (*anuvāda*), etc., and the term '*tattva*' is used to save the definition from being vitiated by the fallacy of over-coverage from illusory cognition.

As per the above definition of *pramā* given by the Bhāṭṭa Mīmāṁsaka school neither *smṛti* nor restatement (*anuvāda*) can be considered as *pramā*. The object of *smṛti* is already known. So, it is not '*ajñāta*', and for this reason, it is not a case of *pramā*. Due to the same reason, restatement also cannot be treated as a case of *pramā*. It may be explained with the help of an example. Suppose the following two sentences are taken, 'The elder son of the king *Daśaratha* is *Rāma*' and 'The *Rāma* killed the *Rāvaṇa*'. In the first sentence, it is already stated who is '*Rāma*'. So, the second sentence cannot give us any new information about '*Rāma*'. That is why the second sentence, which is called a restatement so long as the cognition of '*Rāma*' is concerned, cannot be a case of *pramā*. However, it is worthy to note that according to the Naiyāyikas, cognition of restatement also should be treated as a case of valid cognition or *pramā*, because it can conveniently be reduced to testimony.

As stated above, we have seen that Nārāyaṇa Bhaṭṭa has opposed the Nyāya views in his book *Mānameyodaya*. The Nyāya definition of valid cognition as well as the Nyāya concept of restatement has been criticized by him. However, for Mīmāṁsakas, no restatement can be taken as a case of valid cognition, because they cannot give us new information. So, the definition cannot be accepted as the right one.

The above criticism raised by the Mīmāṁsaka school against the Nyāya view has been countered. The Naiyāyikas argue that though someone may think that the statement '*Sāntiniketan* is *Sāntiniketan*' does not give us any new information and in that sense, it cannot give us cognition, but the fact is otherwise. Because this sentence actually provides us a piece of new information. If we have close scrutiny, then it can be understood that in this sentence, the speaker uses the subject '*Sāntiniketan*' to refer

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[41] "*ajñātapadenātra jñātaviṣayayoḥ smṛtyanuvādayornirāsaḥ*." *Mānameyodaya*: 4, p. 6.

to a particular place. However, the speaker uses the term predicate '*Sāntiniketan*' with a different intention. Because by that term, he intends to distinguish the place *Sāntiniketan* from the other places, which are not *Sāntiniketan*. So, it is very much clear that the above sentence is informative, and therefore it is a case of valid cognition or *pramā*. However, in no way, the Bhāṭṭas will agree with this view of Naiyāyikas. Because, unlike Naiyāyikas, the Bhāṭṭa does not give any particular importance to the intention of the speaker. According to them, the meaning of the *Vedic* statements is purely independent of the intention of the speaker because they are impersonal (*apauruṣeya*).

Now a question comes: If valid cognition is about an unknown object, then in the case of continuous streams of cognition, the second, third, and so on are invalid; because, in such cases, the object of the second, third, and so on cognition is already known. For example, 'this is a jar', 'this is a jar'. Here, the second cognition is invalid as the object of the second cognition, i.e., the 'jar' is not unknown anymore. Here the cognition of the first moment is valid because the object of that cognition was unknown. However, in the second moment, the known object is known again. Owing to this reason, the cognition of the second moment cannot be valid.

However, this objection has been beautifully countered by Nārāyaṇa Bhaṭṭa. He says that the cognition of the second moment is also valid, like the first one. Because the object 'jar' at the second moment is not known as being isolated from time, rather it is known as necessarily related to time. At the time, i.e., the second moment was not known at the first moment, and the 'jar' related to the second moment also was not known at the first moment. In that, the object 'jar' in the second moment was also unknown. That is why Nārāyaṇa Bhaṭṭa claims that the cognition of the second moment and so forth are also valid.

It is well-known to us that according to both the Nyāya and Mīmāṁsā schools, time is indivisible. But though they believe that time is indivisible yet it becomes divisible under its extraneous adjunct. However, here, the *pūrvapakṣī*-s may put a question against this view of the Bhāṭṭa school. They may ask, what is this extraneous adjunct by which the element of time over here is defined? In reply to this question, the writer of the *Mānameyodaya* says that here it is the manifestedness (*prākatya*) that

acts as the extraneous adjunct over here.[42] He views that the manifestedness is produced for each of the succeeding objects of cognition by each of the preceding cognition. Say, for example, when we have the cognition of a 'jar' in the first moment as 'this is a jar', hereby this cognition manifestedness (*prākatya*) is produced in the jar of the second moment. However, according to the Bhāṭṭas, this manifestedness is perceivable. As the manifestedness can be perceived as the time related to this, manifestedness also can be perceived. The object of the second, third, and the following moments are known for being related to the time and the manifestedness (*prākatya*). So, this object must be unknown. Simply because of the time with its extraneous adjunct, manifestedness is unknown. However, here the opponents may raise another objection against this view of the Bhāṭṭa school. They say that the manifestedness is subtle, and that is why they cannot be perceived. However, in order to substantiate his own position, Nārāyaṇa Bhaṭṭa says that the manifestedness cannot be subtle. Had it been really subtle like the petals of the lotus, then there could not have been the cognition like 'this is jar', 'this is jar' in the different moments.

Now let us examine the justification for using the second term '*tattva*' in the definition of valid cognition (*pramā*). It is said that the term '*tattva*' is highly essential because this term makes the definition free from the fallacy of over-coverage (*ativyāpti-doṣa*) by excluding illusion, doubt, and hypothetical reasoning from the purview of cognition. Illusory cognition is not a case of valid cognition. The cognition of silver in the place of the shell is a case of erroneous cognition. This cognition is erroneous because it does not correspond to the fact, more clearly, to say this cognition is not the cognition of the object as it is (*tattva*). Here, the object of the cognition is a shell, but we know it is not as a shell, but as something (silver) other than the shell. That is why by using the term '*tattva*', these erroneous cognitions are excluded from the scope of valid cognition, and thereby the definition is saved from being vitiated by the fallacy of over-coverage (*ativyāpti-doṣa*).

The cognition of the common properties remaining in two objects becomes the cause of doubt (*saṁśaya*). The height, straightness, etc., belong to both the trunk of a tree and a man which gives rise to a dubious cognition in the form: 'whether this is a

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[42] "*tasmāt prākaṭyabhedānāṁ kālabhedānāṁ ca na sūkṣmatvam*". *Mānameyodaya*: 6, p. 8.

trunk of a tree or a man'. As doubt is the different apprehension about the same object, it is not a valid cognition (*a-tattva*) of a thing. So, by using the term '*tattva*', the fallacy of over-coverage is removed from doubt. *Tarka* is to be restored as a method to eliminate the doubt of deviation between probans and probandum. It is imposed erroneous cognition of the existence of a pervader (*vyāpaka*), which is produced by another imposed erroneous cognition of the existence of a pervaded (*vyāpya*). The very form in which *tarka* or hypothetical reasoning is applied is as follows 'if there were no fire, then there could not have been smoke too'. *Tarka* is not a case of valid cognition because it does not correspond to the fact. Here, we assume the non-existence of both fire and smoke. However, in reality, both of them do exist; that is why it is evident that cognition is not of the object as it is. Therefore, by using the same term, i.e., '*tattva*', the definition has been made free from the fallacy of over-coverage by excluding the invalid cognition called hypothetical reasoning (*tarka*).

According to Prābhākara Mīmāṁsakas, 'all Apprehensions are valid'.[43] There is no invalid apprehension or cognition. Hence, the application of '*tattva*' in the definition of *pramā*, according to him, is useless. When the cognition of silver in a shell is produced, then actually, it is not a case of an illusion. Here, in this case, there are two pieces of cognition, one is perceptual, and another is memory. Both of them are correct separately, but an illusion arises when we wrongly identify one with another. So, it is insignificant to use the term '*tattva*' in the definition of valid cognition (*pramā*).

However, Bhāṭṭa Mīmāṁsakas cannot agree with Prābhākara Mīmāṁsakas on this issue. They observe that the term '*tattva*' used in the definition of *pramā* is highly essential. According to Bhāṭṭa, illusory cognition is not a combination of two pieces of cognition as it is maintained by Prabhākara, but it is one type of specific cognition. There is a general tendency that when one has a specific cognition about something, he wants to take this thing, e.g., when a thirsty person knows something like the water, he wants to remove his thirst by that water. The same is true in the case when

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[43] Jha, Ganganath. *The Prābhākar School of Pūrva Mīmāṁsā*, Motilal Banarsidass Pvt. Ltd., Delhi, 1978, p. 19.

one has a cognition as 'this is silver' in a shell. When someone attains this type of cognition, he proceeds to receive silver. However, here the person concerned fails to attain the silver. Thus, it is established that cognition is illusory. This type of illusory cognition is removed by using the term '*tattva*', according to Bhāṭṭa.

1.7.3 The Prābhākara Mīmāṁsā Concept of *Pramā*:

In the earlier section, we have already mentioned that we depend upon Prabhākara Miśra and Kumārila Bhaṭṭa to know the view on *pramā* of the Pūrva-Mīmāṁsā school. Jaimini has not discussed on *pramā* in his *Jaimini-Sūtra*. Prabhākara writes *Vṛhatī* and *Laghvī* following the commentary of the *Śabarabhāṣya*. Later on, Śālikanātha, a disciple of Prabhākara, writes the three commentaries viz. *Dīpśikhā* following by *Laghvī*, *Ṛjuvimalā,* and *Prakaraṇa Pañcikā* following by *Vṛhatī*.

The Prābhākar Mīmāṁsakas states that cognition is divided into two viz. valid and invalid. Valid cognition refers to all those cognitions that hold directly upon their object. Invalid cognition, on the other, holds the object indirectly. Thus, according to Prābhākar Mīmāṁsakas, valid cognition is denoted as '*anubhava*' (apprehension), and invalid cognition as '*smṛti*' (remembrance). When the certainty of the object of cognition is not dependent on other cognition then that cognition is called *anubhūti* - "… *pūrvabuddhyanapekhṣatvam*"[44]. By the term '*pramāṇa*', Prabhākara means both the *pramā* and *pramāṇa* like the Buddhist school. Hence, the term '*pramāṇa*' has been used by this school very promiscuously. Śālikanātha Mīśra, a disciple of Prabhākara Miśra, states:

"*yathārthaṁ sarvameveha vijñānamiti siddhaye.*

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[44] Nandiśvar, *Prabhākara-Vijaya*, Anantakriṣna Śāstrī O Rāmnātha Śāstrī (Ed.), Saṁskrit Sāhitya Pariṣada, Kolkata, 1926, p. 24.

Prabhākaragurorbhāvaḥ samīcīnaḥ prakāśyate."[45].

Accordingly, all apprehensions are valid according to Prabhākara. There is no invalid apprehension. If apprehension is invalid, then there will be doubt regarding the validity of every type of cognition.[46] Hence, apprehension is always non-erroneous (*avyabhicārī*).[47] The object of apprehension is always only manifested in its object when the apprehension produced, i.e., apprehension is self-manifested (*svaprakāśa*) – "*svaprakāśatvaṁ nāma sva vyavahāre saṁvidantarnirpekṣatvam*"[48]. All the apprehension is non-erroneous of the object due to the capability of apprehension. It only expresses the object. Say, for instance, the apprehension of the book is only expressing the object, i.e., book, nothing else. That is why it is bound to accept the view that the object of the apprehension of the book is only to express the book. The apprehension which is not expressed to the knower is not the cognition of object. Śālikanātha Mīśra, in this context, says:

"*atra vrumo ya evārtho yasyāṁ saṁvidi vāsate.*

Vedyaḥ sa eva nānyaddhi vidyād vedyasya lakṣaṇam."[49]

Hence, according to Śālikanātha Mīśra also, the application of '*tattva*' in the definition of *pramā* is useless. The term '*tattva*' is a synonymous term of the term '*pramā*'. Apprehension, for Prābhākara school, is self-manifested (*svaprakāśa*) and it illuminates its object. That is why, according to this school, there is no scope for

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[45] Miśra, Śālikanātha. *Prakaraṇa Pañcikā*, *Nayabhīthī Prakaraṇa*, *Kārikā*-1, Subrahman Śāstrī (Ed.), Kāśi Hindu Viśwavidyalaya, Benarass, 1961, p. 43.

[46] "*jñānasya vyabhicāre hi biśwāsaḥ kiṁnivandhanḥ*". Ibid., *Kārikā*-69, p. 59.

[47] "*viṣayāvyabhicāritvaṁ sādhayituṁ sarvasaṁvidāmeṣā. / nirmīyate nītividā Śālikanāthena Nayavīthī*." Ibid., *Kārikā*-76, p. 61.

[48] *Prabhākara-Vijaya*, p. 27.

[49] Ibid., *Kārikā*-23, p. 48.

invalidity of apprehension. Thus, immediate experiencehood (*anubhūtitva*) is the defining characteristic (*lakṣaṇa*) of *pramāṇa* (instrument of valid cognition).[50]

Anubhava is defined as cognition other than *smṛti* (remembrance). That is why, according to the Prābhākara school, *anubhūti* is *pramā* (apprehension), and *smṛti* is *apramā*. Like the Naiyāyikas, the Prābhākara school also says that *smṛti* (remembrance) is produced only through mental impression (*saṁskāra-mātra*) of previous cognition (*pūrvavijñāna*).[51] The object of *smṛti* is an object which has already been known in the previous cognition. It has not been regarded as non-erroneous (*avyabhicārī*) cognition, since it is invariably dependent on previous experience. Hence, the Prābhākara Mīmāṁsakas have not accepted *smṛti* as a *pramāṇa*.[52] The subject of *smṛti* has expressed an experience that is not independent of the previous experience, and also the cognition does not feel as '*tat*', which refers to previous experience. Say, for instance, when someone has seen Devadatta in Mathura, after a long time, he memorizes Devadatta as '*saḥ Devadatta*'. Here, '*saḥ*' only refers to the previous experience; there is no link to the present experience. Hence, *smṛti* (remembrance) is not independent.[53]

Moreover, the Prābhākara school accepts the apprehension of *pratyabhijñā* (recognition) as a *pramāṇa*. The form of *pratyabhijñā* is '*saḥ ayaṁ Devadattaḥ*'. I have seen Devadatta in Mathura. Furthermore, after a long-time interval again, I am seeing that Devadatta in front of me in Varanasi. In that situation, I should pass the statement that 'this is that Devadatta', whom I have seen in Mathura earlier ('*saḥ ayaṁ Devadattaḥ*'). This is the so-called *pratyabhijñā* (recognition). In the case of *pratyabhijñā*, the object is present in front of the perceiver, which is identified with the object seen in earlier perception. Thus, the sense-object contact is possible

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[50] "*anubhūtiśca naḥ pramāṇam*." *Vṛhatī*: 1-2-5.

[51] "*smṛtiḥ punaḥ - pūrvavijñānasaṁskāramātrajaṁ jñānamucyate*." *Prakaraṇa Pañcikā*, p. 124.

[52] "*na pramāṇaṁ smṛtiḥ pūrvapratipatterapekṣaṇāt*." Ibid., p. 125.

[53] "*smṛtirhi tadityupajāyamānā prācīṁ pratītimanuruddhyamānā na swātantryeṇa arthaṁ paricchinatti iti na pramāṇam*". Ibid., p. 125.

between the object and the perceiver, though there is also the mental impression (*saṁskāra*).[54]

Prābhākara Mīmāṁsakas accept the persistent cognition (*dhārāvāhika-jñāna*) as a *pramāṇa*. Someone may raise the question: Is persistent cognition accepted by Prābhākara Mīmāṁsakas as a *pramāṇa*? This question is raised since it is produced from the previous mental impression (*saṁskāra*). The answer is obviously positive. Prābhākara Mīmāṁsakas accept persistent cognition (*dhārāvāhika-jñāna*) as *pramāṇa* since, according to them, they are not a repetition of previous mental impression (*saṁskāra*). The conditions which are fulfilled in the case of the first apprehension, are not different from the conditions which are seen to be fulfilled in the second and the rest apprehension in the case of persistent cognition (*dhārāvāhika-jñāna*). Hence, the *prāmāṇya* of other apprehensions of persistent cognition must be recognized due to the presence of *anubhūtitva* (immediate experiencehood) independently.[55] Therefore, according to Prābhākara Mīmāṁsakas, immediate experiencehood (*anubhūtitva*) is the essential characteristic (*lakṣaṇa*) of *pramāṇa,* which is associated only with the purview of sense-object contact directly.

It is not necessary to incorporate the term '*yathārtha*' in the definition of apprehension as there is not any invalid cognition. That is why there is also no scope for the fallacy of over-coverage (*ativyāpti-doṣa*) owing to the inclusion of illusion and doubt. Now, the question arises: if all apprehension is valid, then how the apparent cognition of illusion can be accounted for? This fact cannot be denied that sense-object contact is taken place in the case of illusion. Hence, an illusion is a valid piece of apprehension as per the criterion of valid cognition set up by Prābhākara Mīmāṁsakas. *Anubhūtitva* is adopted as the mark of *pramāṇa* by the Prābhākara Mīmāṁsakas. This *anubhūtitva* is also there in the case of illusion. This implies that

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[54] "*mātragrahaṇācca pratyavijñānasya na smṛtitvam, indriyasacivasaṁskārajatvāt*." Ibid., p. 125.

[55] "*anyonyanirapekṣāstu dhārāvāhikabuddhayaḥ. vyāpriyamāṇe hi pūrvavijñānakāraṇakalāpe uttareṣamapyutpattiriti na utpattitaḥ pratītito vā dhārāvāhikavijñānāni parsparamapyātiśerte iti yuktā sarveṣāmapi pramāṇatā*." Ibid., p. 125.

illusion is also valid. However, most of the philosophers have accepted illusory cognition as an invalid cognition. So, the definition of *pramāṇa* of Prābhākara Mīmāṁsakas is affected by the fallacy of over-coverage (*ativyāpti-doṣa*). It can be illustrated with the help of an example. When someone has seen the shell from a distance as silver, 'shell as silver', that person says that 'this is silver'. Here, also perceiver sees the object directly, but, by fault, the perception is not the right one in that situation. This cognition should be treated as a valid one as sense-object contact is there. Hence, the question arises whether this cognition is valid one as sense-object contact is very much there.

Prābhākara Mīmāṁsakas do not accept such type of objection. They argue that such a type of illusory cognition (this is silver) is not a proper one. Actually, there is no *anubhūtitva* because illusory cognition is not a specific cognition (*viśiṣta-jñāna*). When the cognition of silver in a shell is produced, then actually, it is not a case of an illusion. Here, in this case, there are two pieces of cognition, one is perceptual (*idaṁ*), and another is remembrance (*rajatam*). Both of them are right cognitions separately, and illusion arises only when we combine them by mistake as a specific cognition (*viśiṣta-jñāna*).

Prābhākara Mīmāṁsakas do not accept the illusory cognition. We are well-known that there are different theories of illusion proposed by different schools, and all of them have tried to understand the exact cause of illusion. The error may be universal or personal. However, Indian philosophers emphasize universal error when they discuss their theory of error. The fundamental question is where illusion is produced due to the object, or due to the cognition, or due to the usefulness. The different answer to this question gives birth to different theories viz. *akhyātivāda* by the Prābhākar Mīmāṁsā, *viparīta khyātivāda* by the Bhāṭṭa Mīmāṁsā, *anyathākhyātivāda* by the Naiyāyika, *anirvacanīya khyātivāda* by the Advaita Vedāntīn, *sat khyātivāda* by the Viśiṣṭādvaitin, *asat khyātivāda* by the Mādhyamik Buddhist, *ātmakhyātivāda* by the Yogācāra Buddhist, and *sadāsat khyātivāda* by the Sāṁkhya.

Like the others, Prābhākara Mīmāṁsakas also highlight the exact cause of illusion through their *akhyātivāda*. The meaning of *akhyāti* (non-apprehension) is the

lack of apprehension. Here, '*a*' means lacking or negation, and '*khyāti*' means apprehension. That is why '*akhyāti*' means non-apprehension. Prābhākara Mīmāṁsakas state that so-called illusory cognition is produced due to the identification of two cognitions as a qualified (*viśiṣṭa*) one. There are actually two cognitions in the case of illusory cognition. However, we identified them as qualified cognition. That is why the illusion is produced what Śālikanātha states as follows:

"*tato vine avudhvā tu smaraṇagrahaṇe eme.*

samānenaiva rūpeṇa kevalaṁ manyate janaḥ".[56]

Such type of error is produced due to the misapprehension of a hybrid cognition into a single cognition. The most well-known examples of error in our everyday life like to cognize a shell as silver which is expressed as 'this is silver' instead of 'this is shell',' or 'this is a snake' instead of 'this is rope', are taken place due to this reason. As a matter of fact, there are two cognitions in the case of erroneous cognition of a shell as silver. One cognition is from the perception which is expressed as *idaṁ* (this), and the other cognition is from remembrance which is expressed as *rajatam* (silver). When we see the shell from a distance in dim light, its glossiness arises. We remember that glossiness as silver from our previous perception. So, there are two different cognitions, but we identify these two cognitions (*viśiṣṭa-jñāna)* as unqualified cognition. That is why the illusion arises.

However, no one can say that illusory cognition is not a qualified one. The production of illusory cognition is obviously a qualified one. We say that 'this is silver'. It is a qualified cognition (*viśiṣṭa-jñāna*). Such types of cognition are produced with their qualification (*viśeṣaṇa*). Now, how can we say that this is not a qualified cognition? Actually, qualified cognition (*viśiṣṭa-jñāna*) always produces with its attribution (*viśeṣaṇa*). Apprehension is produced with the relation between the noun (*viśeṣya*) and its attribute (*viśeṣaṇa*). Again, how can we say that such cognition be a combination of two cognitions? The response of Prābhākara Mīmāṁsakas is not acceptable in this regard.

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[56] Ibid., *Kārikā*: 35-36, p. 51.

Again, another question may be raised that if all apprehension is valid, then how can the obstructive cognition (*bādha-jñāna*), viz., '*nedaṁ rajatam*' (this is not silver) be taken place? After the production of the cognition, 'this is silver', the person going to take the silver, but he fails to take the silver as there is no silver. Then, that person understands that 'this is not silver'. Such type of cognition is called obstructive cognition (*bādha-jñāna*). This obstructive cognition (*bādha-jñāna*) is, in fact, nothing but an invalid cognition. However, the Prābhākara Mīmāṁsakas try to respond that '*nedaṁ rajatam*' (this is not silver) is actually produced due to its contradicting use, but not due to the cognition of silver. Cognition contradicts its utilization but not itself.[57] Hence, the form of cognition is '*idaṁ na rajatavyavahārayogyam*'. Though the Prābhākara Mīmāṁsakas try to elaborate the illusory cognition with the help of utilization of cognition but, such a response is not a proper one.

Again, the Prābhākara Mīmāṁsakas hold that the acceptance of the contradictory cognition (*vyabhicārī-jñāna*) may turn every type of apprehension as erroneous. As a result, the object of cognition should not assure in each and every apprehension:

"*yadi cārthaṁ parityajya kācid buddhiḥ pravartate.*

vyabhicāravatī svārthe kathaṁ biśvāsakāraṇam?"[58].

That is why it is not a rational to describe apprehension as invalid (*ayathārtha*). Because we fall on the illusory cognition in some cases. The cognition expresses the object which is not, is called contradictory of the object.[59] Hence, we may mention the illusory cognition as an invalid (*ayathārtha*) one, as the cognition is not produced according to the object. That is why most of the philosophers recognize two sorts of cognition (*yathārtha* and *ayathārtha*). Therefore, the erroneous (*vyabhicārī*) cognition has to be called *ayathārtha* (invalid).

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[57] "*ayaṁ tu viśeṣaḥ - bhavatāṁ jñānasvarūpavādhayā ayathārthatvam asmākaṁ tu vyavahāravādhayā*". *Prabhākara-Vijaya*, p. 16.

[58] *Prakaraṇa Pañcikā*, *Nayavīthi*, *Kārikā*-66, p. 58.

[59] "*yadatasmiṁstaditi tad vyabhicāri*." *Nyāya-Sūtra-Bhāṣya*: 1-1-4.

Though, other schools of Indian philosophy have refuted this view of Prābhākara Mīmāṁsakas as they explain their view differently according to their metaphysical presupposition. We do not need to discuss this. We just want to show that the objection of the fallacy of over-coverage is not applicable in the definition of apprehension at all. Though, the concept of apprehension (*anubhūti*) is not a proper one. Therefore, the view that it is insignificant to use the term '*tattva*' in the definition of valid cognition (*pramā*) according to the Prābhākara Mīmāṁsakas since *pramā* (*yathārtha anubhūti*) itself is valid, is not an adequate one.

Moreover, Prābhākara Mīmāṁsaka's theory of cognition is known as *truputipratyakṣavāda*, according to which the knower, the known, and the cognition simultaneously play an essential role in every sort of cognition. Cognition reveals itself along with the knower and the known. Eventually, we say that 'I know this'. Here, we have three sorts of presentations viz. "I' or the subject which is known as *ahaṁvṛtti*, 'this' or the object which is known as *viṣayavṛtti*, and the awareness of the cognition which is denoted as *svasaṁvṛtti*. According to Prābhākara Mīmāṁsakas, cognition plays an essential role in originating it, like the light, which reveals all of three viz. known, knower and cognition. Cognition, like light, does not require anything to manifest itself. If cognition requires something for it, then the fallacy of infinite regress arises. Because that cognition should be dependent on other cognition and so on, this is why they accept cognition as self-luminous.

However, the Nyāya-Vaiśeṣika and the Bhāṭṭa Mīmāṁsaka do not accept cognition as self-luminous. According to them, cognition reveals the object but cannot reveals itself. Cognition is like the eyes which illuminate everything, but itself remains in the curtain. Cognition is not directly known. Cognition is known through *anuvyavasāya*, and *anumāna* by the Naiyāyikas and Bhāṭṭa Mīmāṁsakas respectively.

1.7.4 The Advaita Vedānta Concept of *Pramā*:

Advaita Vedānta school also discusses the instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*) like the other schools in Indian philosophy. We cannot find any discussion of epistemology (*pramāṇaśāstra*) in Śaṁkara's *Śārīrakabhāṣya*. However, we may

discuss the epistemology of Advaita Vedānta from the *Vedānta-Paribhāṣā* written by Dharmarājā Adhvarīndra. He writes the commentary for establishing the relationship between the metaphysical nature of *Brahman* and *Brahman-jñāna,* and *Brahman-pramāṇa*. Dharmarājā Adhvarīndra defines *pramāṇa* as an instrument through which *prameya* is known – "*tatra pramākaraṇaṁ pramāṇam*"[60]. We have already mentioned that Naiyāyikas accept *smṛti* as a *jñāna,* which is not valid cognition. Annaṁbhaṭṭa also mentions two sorts of *smṛti* (remembrance) viz. *yathārtha (*verdical) and *a-yathārtha* (non-verdical)[61]. Although he further states that *smṛti* can never be a *yathārtha* (verdical). The so-called *yathārtha smṛti* failed to represent its own contents of object, rather the contents of objects that it represents are acquired through lending from *yathārtha anubhava*. This is why the contents of objects represented by *smṛti* are called *yācitamaṇdannyāya*. It can be explained through an example. A poor housewife asks a rich neighbor for ornaments (*maṇdana*) to attend a celebration party as she herself does not have any ornament of her own. By wearing lend ornaments others may think she is the owner of the ornaments although she is not the actual owner. Similarly, the contents of *yathārtha smṛti* are not its' own rather the contents of *smṛti* actually belong to *yathārtha anubhava*. So, *yathārtha smṛti* cannot represent its own object contents but represents only the contents of *yathārtha anubhava*. So, *smṛti* can never be a *pramā* as it is defined as "*tadvati tatprakāraka'nubhava*"[62]. This truth has been coined in *Tarkasaṁgraha* by Annaṁbhaṭṭa. Moreover, various schools, such as Madhva, Vaiśeṣika, and Jaina accept the *pramātva* of *smṛti*. However, Dharmarājā Adhvarīndra is well aware of that fact and so he does not enter into the controversy. That is why Dharmarājā Adhvarīndra gives two definitions of *pramā* (valid cognition) in his *Vedānta-Paribhāṣā* viz. the first definition excludes the *smṛti* from *pramā* (valid cognition), and another definition includes *smṛti* from the purview of *pramā* (valid cognition).

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[60] *Vedānta-Paribhāṣā*, p. 7.

[61] *Tarkasaṁgraha*: 75.

[62] *Tarkasaṁgraha*: 37.

In the first definition of *pramā* in *Vedānta-Paribhāṣā*, Dharmarājā Adhvarīndra says, "*tatra smṛti-vyāvṛttaṁ pramātvamanadhigatāvādhitārtha-viṣayaka-jñānatvam*"[63]. According to this definition, *pramā* (valid cognition) is different from *smṛti* (remembrance) and is characterized by twofold properties of truth (*avādhitārtha*) and novelty (*anadhigata*). If *pramā* (valid cognition), is defined by the term *jñānatva* only then the definition would be affected by *ativyāpti-doṣa* (fallacy of over coverage). Because *jñānatva* includes *bhrama* (illusion) in Yoga philosophy as they say *pramāṇa*, *viparyay*, *vikalpa*, *nidrā,* and *smṛti* are the five sorts of *vṛtti* (*jñāna*)[64]. Naiyāyikas also accept *smṛti* as a kind of *jñāna*. Moreover, if *pramā* is defined as '*arthaviṣayaka jñānatva*', then again, this definition suffers from the *ativyāpti-doṣa* (fallacy of over coverage). Because this definition is equally applicable in the case of illusory cognition. In order to make the definition free from the aforesaid fallacy, the term '*avādhita*' is included in the definition of *pramā*. Now, if the definition of *pramā* stands as '*avādhitārthaviṣayaka-jñānatam*', then the definition includes *smṛti* (remembrance) also and thereby gets affected by the fallacy of over coverage again. Because sometimes the cognition produced from *smṛti* may correspond to fact, which may not be contradictory to subsequent cognition[65]. Keeping this in view Dharmarājā Adhvarīndra incorporates the term '*anadhigata*' in the definition of *pramā* so that the definition excludes *smṛti*. So, the definition of *pramā*, according to Dharmarājā Adhvarīndra is not contradictory to any other subsequent cognition and is not previously known.

All the Indian philosophers accept truth as a fundamental characteristic of *pramā* (valid cognition) unanimously. However, they differ on the nature of truth. We come across four different types of views on the nature of truth given below:

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[63] *Vedānta-Paribhāṣā*, pp. 7-9.

[64] "*pramāṇa-viparyaya-vikalpa-nidrā-smṛṭayāḥ*." *Yoga-Sūtra*, *Samādhipāda*-6.

[65] "*anubhūtaviṣayāsampramoṣaḥ smṛti*." *Yoga-Sūtra*, *Samādhipāda*-11.

1. The first view is mainly from the Buddhist philosophers. According to this view, the reality (*tattva*) of cognition has consisted of its practical value.[66] This view has similar with the pragmatic theory of truth proposed by Western philosophers.
2. The second view is founded on Nyāya philosophy. This view explains the truth as the existence of something which really exists and reveals its object accordingly[67]. There is a similarity between this view of Naiyāyika and the correspondence theory of truth of Western thinkers.
3. The third view is supported by many of the philosophers like Jaina. According to this view, truth is a harmony of experience (*saṁvāda* or *saṁvāditva*).[68] This view has similar with the coherence theory of truth in Western philosophy.
4. The fourth view is proposed by Advaita Vedānta. According to this view, the truth of cognition has consisted in its non-contradictedness (*abādhitatva*). To justify this view, the Advaitins show the dispute of the causal efficacy of Buddhists. Advaitins argue that even a false cognition, sometimes leads to the fulfillment of a purpose. Say, for example, luster as the jewel. Same as when we presuppose that the sun moves around the earth, most of our purpose attain through this conception. However, when we go to astronomy, we understand our falsity. That is why Advaitins do not agree with the view that fulfillment of a purpose is a criterion of *pramā* (valid cognition).

So, Advaitins accept non-contradictedness as a chief criterion of truth as well as *pramā*.

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[66] "*artha-kriyā-samartha-vastu-pradarśakaṁ samyag-jñānam ... yataścārthasiddhistat samyagjñānameva.*". *Nyāya-Vindu-Tīkā*: 1.

[67] "*yatra yad asti tatra tasyānubhavaḥ pramā, tadvati tatprakārakā'nubhavo vā*". *Tattva-Chintāmaṇi*, *Pratyakṣakāraṇavāda*.

[68] "*pramāṇam avisaṁvādi-jñānam*". *Pramāṇa-Vārttika-Bhāṣya*.

The second definition of *pramā* is rendered for those who accept *smṛti* (remembrance) as a *pramā* (valid cognition). The first definition of *pramā* does not include *smṛti* due to the lack of *anadhigatatva* of *smṛti*. So, this definition suffers from the *avyāpti-doṣa* (fallacy of under-coverage). For this reason, Dharmarājā Adhvarīndra gives the second definition of *pramā* as "*smṛti-sādhāraṇantu avādhitārtha-viṣayaka-jñānatvam*".[69] As per this definition, *pramā* (valid cognition) is a type of cognition that has some object as its content and is not contradicted by any other cognition. This definition of *pramā* applies to *smṛti* as here the term '*anadhigata*' (previously unknown) is removed.

There is no problem in explaining the persistent cognition (*dhārāvāhika jñāna*) through the second definition of *pramā* (valid cognition). But the first definition of *pramā* does not overcome this problem. However, the question arises in the first definition of *pramā* by the *pūrvapakṣī* as the definition is affected by the *avyāpti-doṣa* (fallacy of under-coverage). Because when someone continues to perceive an object for more than one moment, the perception of the object of the second moment and the rest only repeats the same object. Therefore, there is no novelty (*anadhigatatva*) in the cognition of subsequent moments. But, the Advaitins accept persistent cognition (*dhārāvāhika jñāna*) as a *pramā* (valid cognition) like the other schools.

Now, the question is what do we mean by persistent cognition (*dhārāvāhika jñāna*) is? The cognition which is produced in different moments centering on the same object is called persistent cognition (*dhārāvāhika jñāna*). Naiyāyikas also accept this persistent cognition (*dhārāvāhika jñāna*) as a *pramā* (valid cognition) since the second cognition is not like the first one. Because the second cognition is not just the *smṛti* of the first cognition. *Smṛti* is only the remembrance of past cognition, and there in the case of *smṛti* the object of cognition is absent. But this is not true here in the case of persistent cognition. When the second cognition is produced, the object of cognition is also present there with it, "… the knowledge at subsequent moments of a persistent cognition stands by its own right and makes a demand for its independent

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[69] *Vedānta-Paribhāṣā*, p. 9.

validity"[70]. Dharmarājā Adhvarīndra gives two solutions to apply the first definition of *pramā* in the case of persistent cognition (*dhārāvāhika jñāna*). One is taken after the Bhāṭṭa Mīmāṁsakas, which is already discussed in the previous section. Another reply is given from the Advaitins point of view.

The fundamental question is, how can the cognitions of different moments of one and the same object be distinguished? Advaitins have beautifully given a solution to this problem on the basis of the difference of *kṣaṇa* (moment). They argue that one cognition is different from the other cognitions because they are produced in different *kṣaṇa* (moments). Say, for example, the perception of a mobile 'now' is known to be quite different from the perception of the same mobile in the 'past'. The difference is due to the difference between the 'present' and the 'past'. The present cognition is also produced in a different *kṣaṇa* (moments). So, when the present cognition is produced, there also the characteristic of '*anadhigatatva*' (novelty) is there – "In such a case the second perception contains a novelty (in virtue of its time-quality, viz. "presence") and is, therefore, a fullfledged [full fledge] knowledge"[71]. That is why the objection to the fallacy of under-coverage (*avyāpti-doṣa*) is not tenable. Another vital point of Advaitins is worthy to note, in the case of persistent cognition the corresponding cognition is not entirely different due to the modification of the mind (*antaḥkaraṇavṛtti*). They hold that we have only one mental modification (*antaḥkaraṇavṛtti*) vis-à-vis one cognition in different moments for the case of persistent cognition (*dhārāvāhika jñāna*). Therefore, the inquiry of repetition does not arise at all in Advaita Vedānta. This truth has been said by the Dharmarājā Adhvarīndra, "*nirūpasyāpi kālasyeindriya-vedyatvāvyupagamena dhārāvāhika-buddherapi pūrva-pūrva-jñānāviṣaya-tattat-kṣaṇaviśeṣa-viśiṣta-viṣayakatvena na tatrāvyāptiḥ. Kiñca siddhānte dhārāvāhika-buddhisthale na jñānabhedaḥ; kintu yāvad ghaṭasphuaṇam, tāvad ghatākārāntaḥkaraṇa-vṛttirekaiva, na tu nānā, vṛtteḥ svavirodhi-vṛttutpatti-parayantaṁ sthāyitvābhyupagamāt. Tathā ca tatra*

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[70] Datta, D. M. *The Six Ways of Knowing*, University of Calcutta, Kolkata, 2014, p. 22.

[71] Ibid., 24.

tatpratiphalita-caitanyarūpaṁ ghaṭādi-jñānamapi tatra tāvat-kālīnamekameveti nāvyāpti-śaṁkāpi"[72].

The *pūrvapakṣī* raises another objection. According to Advaita, only the *Brahman* is real, and this mundane world is false[73]. Now, the question is: if this mundane world is false, then how can cognitions of this mundane world be valid one, i.e., *pramā*? The cognition of this mundane world is realized as false in the stage of the ultimate cognition of *Brahman*. So, the objection of *avyāpti-doṣa* (fallacy of under-coverage) against the Advaitin's definition of *pramā* is still remains.

This objection is not tenable for the Advaitins. Because the Advaitins define *pramā* (valid cognition) only for ordinary human beings. So, the term '*avādhitatva*' (non-contradictory) does not apply to the cognition of ordinary human beings – "*…tathā cāvādhita-padena saṁsāra-daśāyāmavādhitatvaṁ vivakṣitamiti na ghaṭādi-pramāyāmavyāptiḥ*"[74]. Hence, the definition of *pramā* is not affected by *avyāpti-doṣa* (fallacy of under-coverage). Such type of discussion regarding *pramā* (valid cognition) is relevant till the *Brahman-sākṣātkāra* – "*ātma-niścayād Brahman-sākṣātkāra-paryyantamityarthaḥ*"[75].

1.7.5 The Bauddha Concept of *Pramā*:

Dharmakīrti, a Buddhist philosopher, says in his *Pramāṇavārttika* that "*pramānam avisaṁvādi jñānam*"[76]. Here, '*avisaṁvādi*' means non-contradictory cognition of an object and non-contradictory means producing successful activity in respect of the object. If a cognition can produce successful activity of an object, then

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[72] *Vedānta-Paribhāṣā*, pp. 10-12.

[73] "*Brahman satyaṁ, jagat mithyā*".

[74] *Vedānta-Paribhāṣā*, p. 14.

[75] Ibid., p. 14.

[76] *Pramāṇavārttika*: 1-3.

it is called valid cognition (*pramā*). So, successful activity is the criterion of valid cognition. Suppose, in the desert, someone perceives mirage as water from a distance. This cognition is erroneous because it fails to lead to a successful activity. This mirage, which is wrongly perceived as water, cannot allay thrust. That is why this cognition is proved as erroneous. However, if the water is perceived as water, then this cognition is valid simply because it is liable to quench the thrust.

The Buddhists state that there are two *pramāṇa*-s, viz. perception, and inference. Nārāyaṇa Bhaṭṭa observes that the above definition of *pramāṇa* offered by the Bauddha school does not conform to inference. So far as the criterion for testing the validity of cognition is concerned the inference of the past and the future cannot be recognized as *pramāṇa* in the true sense of the term. If a successful activity *(arthakriyākāritva)* is the criterion for testing the validity of cognition, then it is really very difficult to test the validity of the inference of the past and the future.

However, it seems that Nārāyaṇa Bhaṭṭa fails to understand the real implication of the term '*arthakriyākāritva*' used by the Buddhists. When the Buddhists are saying '*arthakriyākāritva avisaṁvādinaṁ*', then thereby they do not intend to mean that successful activity always be attended in our day-to-day life; instead, they like to say that we have the cognition about the successful activity of the object concern. Suppose one perceives fire at a certain distance and subsequently, he proceeds toward the fire to light a lamp, further suppose, the fire gets extinguished before lighting the lamp. Here, though it seems that the fire in question fails to lighting the lamp, yet it is, according to the Buddhists are the case of valid cognition, because we have the cognition about the fact that if other necessary conditions are present then the fire might be able to light the lamp. Therefore, keeping this in view, we can say that the definition of *pramāṇa* given by Dharmakīrti conforms to the case of the second *pramāṇa* called inference.

1.7.6 The Sāṁkhya Concept of *Pramā*:

Sāṁkhya philosophy is one of the most eminent schools in Indian philosophy. This school is normally considered the most ancient school. People usually appreciate

this philosophy not only for its metaphysical presupposition but also for its logical account based on the scientific principles of conservation, transformation, and dissipation of energy. The word '*sāṁkhya*' is derived from the word '*saṁkhyā*'. Again, the word '*saṁkhyā*' derives etymologically from the root '*khyā*' (*jñāna*) with the suffix '*saṁ*'. Generally, the word '*saṁkhyā*' means number, which indicates the number of *tattva*-s in the Sāṁkhya system.[77] Moreover, the word '*sāṁkhya*' denotes to the twenty-four *tattva*-s of this system that truth has been mentioned in *Mahābhārata* also.[78] Again, the word '*saṁkhyā*' refers to thinking and counting.[79] Here, counting denotes to *pañcaviṁśati-tattva* (*vyakta*, *avyakta,* and *puruṣa*), three sorts of suffering, three instruments of valid cognition, and the two realities of *puruṣa* and *prakṛti*; and thinking denotes to the valid cognition of self.

The goal of the Sāṁkhya system is the cessation of all types of sufferings[80] like the other school of Indian philosophy. Valid cognition is the only way to reach the ultimate goal. Through valid cognition, one can be free from all types of suffering. The question is: valid cognition of what? Sāṁkhyas are saying that the valid cognition is the cognition of distinction between the *puruṣa* and the *prakṛti*. This cognition of distinction between the *puruṣa* and the *prakṛti* is the way to reach the ultimate goal, i.e., *kaivalya* (liberation). The Sāṁkhya system holds twenty-four *tattva*-s with *puruṣa*, i.e., *pañcaviṁśati-tattva* (*vyakta*, *avyakta,* and *puruṣa*). The ultimate goal of human beings is the cessation of the sufferings of wistful and endless (*oikāntika* and *ātyantika*). This is possible only through the cognition of the difference between the *puruṣa* and the *prakṛti*. There are twenty-five *tattva*-s in the Sāṁkhya system viz. 1.

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[77] "*Sāṁkhyaṁ saṁkhyātmakatvācca Kapilādibhirucyate*." *Matsya-Purāṇa*: 3-26.

[78] "*saṁkhyān prakurvate caiva prakṛtim ca pracakṣate*
tattvāni ca caturviṁśattvena sāṁkhyaṁ prakīrtitaṁ". *Mahābhārata*: 306, 42-43.

[79] "*carcā sāṁkhyā vicāraṇā*." *Amarkoṣa*: 1-v-3.

[80] Sāṁkhyas are accepted three sorts of suffering viz. *ādhyāmtika* (proceeding from intrinsic causes, such as body and mind), *ādhibhautika* (proceeding from extrinsic causes, such as men, birds, beasts, inanimate objects, etc.) and *ādhidaivika* (proceeding from supernatural causes, such as influence from atmosphere or planets).

prakṛti, 2. *mahat* or *buddhi* 3. *ahaṁkāra*, 4. *manas*, 5-9. five sensory organs, 10-14. five motor organs, 10-14. five *tanmātra*-s, 20-24. five *mahābhūta*-s, and 25. *puruṣa*.

However, it is essential to establish this twenty-five *tattva*-s (*pañcaviṁśati-tattva*) through the *pramāṇa*. One may not accept these *tattva*-s if they are not examined by *pramāṇa*. Moreover, liberation is possible through the help of the cognition of the distinction between the *puruṣa* and the *prakṛti*. That is why the discussion of *pramāṇa* becomes important in the Sāṁkhya system.

It is already mentioned that different philosophy has discussed various sorts of *pramāṇa* according to their metaphysical presupposition. The metaphysical view of the Sāṁkhya system is quite different from the other schools of Indian philosophy. That is why Sāṁkhyas also emphasize their epistemology like the others school of Indian philosophy.

Īsvarakṛṣṇa, *Sūtrākāra* of the Sāṁkhya system, deals with Sāṁkhya epistemology in his *Sāṁkhyakārikā*. Here he says that there are three sorts of *pramāṇa* viz. *dṛṣṭa* (*pratyakṣa*), *anumāna,* and *āptavacana* (*āgama* or *śabda*). The objects of valid cognition (*prameya*) are ascertained by the instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*).[81] Actually, Īśvarakṛṣṇa has mentioned the classification and necessity of *pramāṇa* in his this *Kārikā*. He has tried to mention the *lakṣaṇa* of *pramāṇa* only by mentioning the term '*pramāṇa*' in his *Kārikā*. The instrument of *pramā* (valid cognition) is called *pramāṇa*. Now, the question comes about what is *pramā*? It is worthy to note that we cannot find the view regarding the nature of *pramā* by Īśvarakṛṣṇa.

Vācaspati Miśra, a commentator of *Sāṁkhyakārikā*, deals with the nature of *pramā*. We have already mentioned that Naiyāyikas and some other philosophies

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[81] "*dṛṣṭamanumānamāptavacanaṁ ca sarvapramāṇasiddhatvāt.*
trividhaṁ pramāṇamiṣṭaṁ prameyasiddhiḥ pramāṇāddhi." *Sāṁkhyakārikā*: 4.

accept *buddhi*, *upalabdhi*, and *jñāna* as synonymous terms.[82] However, Sāṁkhyas do not accept *buddhi*, *upalabdhi*, and *jñāna* as synonymous.

Vācaspati Miśra states the definition of *pramāṇa* (instrument of valid cognition) in his *Sāṁkhyatattvakaumudī* as: "… *pramāṁ prati karaṇatvaṁ gamyate taccāsandigdhāviparītānadhigataviṣayā cittavṛttiḥ*."[83] This *Kārikā* indicates that the instrument of valid cognition is undoubtful (*asandigdha*), truth (*aviparīta*) and unknown previously (*anadhigata*), and the object which is constructed by the modification of *buddhi*[84] (*cittavṛtti*). In this definition, Vācaspati Miśra removes the fallacy of over-coverage (*ativyāpti-doṣa*) through the using of the terms *asandigdha*, *aviparīta,* and *anadhigata* and thereby excluding doubt, illusion, and remembrance, respectively. So, valid cognition (*pramā*) is devoid of doubt, illusion, and remembrance.

It is important to mention that the Bhāṭṭa school also, more or less, holds the same view about the essential mark of valid cognition. Like the Bhāṭṭā Mīmāṁsakas, the Sāṁkhyas also maintain that valid cognition must be characterized by the three important properties viz. truth, novelty, and the absence of doubt. However, there is a fundamental difference between the Bhāṭṭa concepts of valid cognition and the Sāṁkhya concepts of the same. The Sāṁkhya system accepts valid cognition as the form of the object, which is the modification of *buddhi* (*cittavṛtti*). *Pramā* is the exact copy of the object. Cognition, according to the Sāṁkhyas, is nothing but a copy of the object of cognition. A true copy corresponds to its original, in the same way; valid cognition corresponds to its object. However, the Bhāṭṭa school does not accept the copy theory of cognition. According to them, cognition is judgmental. Cognition, the Bhāṭṭas hold, reveals an object, but it does not assume any form. Cognition is judgmental in the sense that it assumes some sort of judgment as 'this is a book', 'the

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[82] "*buddhiḥ upalabdhiḥ jñānam iti anarthāntaram*". *Nyāya-Sūtra*: 1-1-15.

[83] *Sāṁkhyatattvakaumudī* of *Sāṁkhyakārikā*: 4.

[84] It important to note that in Sāṁkhya system, '*citta*' is treated as *mahat*, *buddhi* and *antaḥkaraṇa*, where as in Yoga system, '*citta*' refers to the combination of *buddhi*, *mana*, and *ahaṁkāra* of Sāṁkhya.

table is brown', and so on. This difference gives birth to another difference between the two schools regarding the validity of cognition. According to the Sāṁkhya school, the cognition of one will be true if and only if the copy or the picture that he has in his mind corresponds to the object outside his mind. The Bhāṭṭa school, on the other hand, maintains that the cognition of a person will be valid if and only if when the object is there. Suppose, if there is a rose in reality and someone sees the rose and judges it to be a rose, then his cognition is said to be true. This difference is for so-called *svarūpa-caitanya* (consciousness as it is in itself) and *vṛtti-caitanya* (consciousness of object).

Sāṁkhya system states that *puruṣa* (self) as the knower is real, which is different from objects known. That is why the relation of the *puruṣa* (self) to objects is impossible. Desire, aversion, effort, pleasure, pain, and cognition are the specific properties of the *puruṣa* (self). These can never belong to matter, which is non-intelligent. Intelligence invariably implies consciousness. However, Vācaspati Miśra says that *puruṣa* (self) is inactive by nature. All activities belong to *prakṛti*. *Puruṣa* (self) is inactive but conscious. *Prakṛti*, on the other, is active but unconscious. *Buddhi* is an evolute produced out of *prakṛti* due to the process called evolution. As *buddhi* is an evolute of *prakṛti* it like *prakṛti* is also unconscious. But due to the proximity of *puruṣa*, the *buddhi* appears to be conscious and considers itself as the knower. When an object comes in contact with the sense-organ, it produces a specific modification. This modification is analyzed and synthesized by the mind (*antaḥkaraṇa*) and is presented to *buddhi*. However, *buddhi* cannot by itself know the object due to its unconscious nature. The object appears to be *buddhi* as it has the quality of *sattva*[85]. This is the so-called cognition by the Sāṁkhyas. When light reflects on a mirror, then an object appears in it. Likewise, through the presence of *sattva* in *buddhi,* the consciousness of the self or *puruṣa* is reflected on it and it appears as conscious and cognizes the object.

Citta or *buddhi* is the first evolution of the *prakṛti,* and it is predominant with *sattva*. It is already stated that *citta* or *buddhi* itself is unconscious, but due to the

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[85] *Sattva* is responsible for the lightness of objects; it has the power of nature to illuminates and reveals all manifestations.

proximity of *puruṣa*, the consciousness, the property of *puruṣa* is reflected upon *buddhi* and it appears as conscious. When *buddhi* gets associated with an object, it assumes the form of that object. This form of *citta* is called modification or *vṛtti*. The light of consciousness, which comes from the *puruṣa* and illuminates with this form, is called *jñāna*. As a matter of fact, *puruṣa* is treated as a witness of valid cognition, and not a real cognizer.[86] However, Vijñānavikṣu accepts *buddhi* as a *pramāṇa*. The *pramā* which is produced by *karaṇa* is located in *puruṣa*. Vācaspati Mīśra also says that *buddhi* of *puruśa* is the result of valid cognition (*pramā*), and fulfillment of valid cognition is called an instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*).[87] This is the Sāṁkhya epistemology in brief.

Now, let us see what the distinction between the *pramāṇa* and *pramā* as it is stated by the Sāṁkhya school is? According to Kapila, *pramā* is a determinate cognition of an object, which is previously unknown. However, *pramāṇa* is one that is most conducive to such cognition. Vijñānvikṣu opines that the modification of *buddhi* is *pramāṇa* and it is nothing but the sense-object contact in the case of perceptual cognition. Iśvarkṛiṣṇa is of the view that *pramāṇa* is that which brings about the cognition of an object.

1.8 The Salient Point of *Pramā*:

From the discussion as mentioned earlier, we can say that different philosophers have given the definition of valid cognition (*pramā*) and instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*) in different ways due to their metaphysical presupposition. Moreover, all of the Indian philosophies are unanimously accepted truth as one of the essential characteristics of *pramā* (valid cognition).

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[86] "*puruṣastu pramāsākṣayeva na pramāteti*." *Sāṁkhya-Pravacana-Bhāṣya*: 1-87.

[87] "*bodhaśca pauruṣeyaḥ falaṁ pramā, tatsādhanaṁ pramāṇamiti*." *Sāṁkhyatattvakaumudī* of *Sāṁkhyakārikā*: 4.